

BASES ADMITTING SIX- AND EIGHT-DIGIT KAPREKAR FIXED POINTS: A COMPLETE CONGRUENCE CLASSIFICATION

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ABSTRACT. For the Kaprekar transformation K_b (sort the base- b digits in descending and ascending order and subtract) acting on integers with a fixed digit length n , we determine, for $n = 6$ and $n = 8$, exactly which bases $b \geq 2$ admit a fixed point. For $n = 6$: a fixed point exists if and only if $2 \mid b$, or $b \equiv 6 \pmod{7}$, or $b \equiv 8 \pmod{9}$, or $b \equiv 10 \pmod{15}$. For $n = 8$: if and only if $3 \mid b$, or $b \equiv 10, 12 \pmod{15}$, or $b \equiv 11, 14 \pmod{17}$, or $b \equiv 13 \pmod{21}$, or $b \in \{2, 4, 8\}$. All fixed points are given by explicit families, linear in b , together with a finite exceptional set confined to $b \leq 10$. The existence halves of these classifications refine infinite families constructed by Jordan in 1964; the completeness halves are, to our knowledge, new. The proofs are computer-assisted but exact: a channel decomposition of the borrow chain reduces the problem to finitely many linear systems over $\mathbb{Q}$, classified with exact rational arithmetic, and the indeterminate cases are closed by exact two-variable linear programming. We describe the structural transition between the two classifications: the moduli-doubling phenomenon for odd bases persists, while the universal even-base witness of $n = 6$ is replaced at $n = 8$ by a parity-blind $3 \mid b$ family, which provably recurs at $n = 10$; the general- n law behind these divisors remains open.

1. INTRODUCTION

Fix a base $b \geq 2$ and a digit length n . For an integer x with exactly n digits in base b (leading digit nonzero), let $\text{desc}(x)$ and $\text{asc}(x)$ denote the integers obtained by sorting the digit string of x (leading zeros permitted after sorting) in descending and ascending order, and set

$$K_{b,n}(x) = \text{desc}(x) - \text{asc}(x).$$

Kaprekar's celebrated observation [1] is that in base 10 with $n = 4$ every non-repdigit integer reaches the fixed point 6174. The literature on the Kaprekar transformation splits into two natural axes. Along the first axis one fixes the *base* and studies all digit lengths: this is the programme completed for base 10 constants by Prichett, Ludington and Lapenta [7], refined by Iwasaki [10], and developed for general odd and even bases in the two-part work of Kay and Downes-Ward [8, 9]; Ludington [6] showed that every base admits only finitely many Kaprekar constants. Along the second axis one fixes the *digit length* n and varies the base. Here two questions must be distinguished. The classical, stronger question asks for *Kaprekar constants*: a unique fixed point attracting every non-repdigit n -digit integer. Hasse and Prichett [3] determined all bases with a four-digit Kaprekar constant; Lapenta, Ludington and Prichett [4] gave an algorithm for self-producing (= fixed) r -digit g -adic integers, a line of work going back to Jordan [2], whose base-ten corollary prefigures the decadic classification of [7]. Thakur [5] settled the odd lengths $n = 5, 7, 9$ (with a single base each for $n = 7, 9$), gave partial data for $n = 6, 8$ (Kaprekar constants found only at $b = 13, 17$ for $n = 6$ among $b \leq 39$, and only at $b = 3$ for $n = 8$ among $b \leq 17$), and posed as an open problem exactly the existence question we answer

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here (“characterization of (B, D) such that $\text{FP}(B, D)$ is non-empty”). The very recent cross-base study of $n = 4$ dynamics in [11] shows the axis remains active. The weaker *existence* question (which bases admit *any* n -digit fixed point) is the natural first layer of that programme, and it is the question we settle here for the even lengths $n = 6$ and $n = 8$. The distinction matters: for instance, our scanner shows that for $b \leq 60$ five-digit fixed points exist precisely for $b = 2$ and $3 \mid b$ (the $3 \mid b$ direction being consistent with Jordan’s odd-length construction), whereas five-digit Kaprekar *constants* are far rarer.

The existence side of the second axis goes back further than we knew when this project began. In 1964, Jordan [2] constructed, for every even digit length, infinite arithmetic progressions of bases carrying a fixed point.¹ In our notation his families include the progression $b \equiv 10 \pmod{15}$ for every even n (specialising at $n = 4$ to the Hasse–Prichett family), progressions supported on $b \equiv 13 \pmod{21}$ and on $b \equiv 28 \pmod{51}$, a six-digit example at $b = 13$, and a base carrying two distinct six-digit fixed points at $b = 55$; he closed by remarking that “a general formula would be desirable”. What has remained open since 1964 is the *completeness* question: whether such constructions exhaust the admissible bases. This paper settles that question for the first two even lengths, proving the full characterization (both directions) for $n = 6$ and $n = 8$.

Theorem 1 ($n = 6$). *A base $b \geq 2$ admits a six-digit Kaprekar fixed point if and only if*

$$2 \mid b \quad \vee \quad b \equiv 6 \pmod{7} \quad \vee \quad b \equiv 8 \pmod{9} \quad \vee \quad b \equiv 10 \pmod{15}.$$

All fixed points belong to the four explicit families of Table 1, apart from four exceptional points confined to bases $b \in \{2, 4, 6\}$ (each such base already being covered by the families). Restricted to odd bases the condition becomes $b \equiv 13 \pmod{14} \vee b \equiv 17 \pmod{18} \vee b \equiv 25 \pmod{30}$.

Theorem 2 ($n = 8$). *A base $b \geq 2$ admits an eight-digit Kaprekar fixed point if and only if*

$$3 \mid b \vee b \equiv 10, 12 \pmod{15} \vee b \equiv 11, 14 \pmod{17} \vee b \equiv 13 \pmod{21} \vee b \in \{2, 4, 8\}.$$

All fixed points belong to the six explicit families of Table 2, apart from nine exceptional points confined to $b \in \{2, 4, 6, 8, 10\}$; the bases 2, 4, 8 are the only ones whose fixed points are all exceptional. Restricted to odd bases the condition becomes $b \equiv 3 \pmod{6} \vee b \equiv 25, 27 \pmod{30} \vee b \equiv 11, 31 \pmod{34} \vee b \equiv 13 \pmod{42}$.

The proofs are computer-assisted in the strong sense: every step is either an elementary identity (the borrow-chain successor formulas of Section 2) or a finite computation carried out in exact rational arithmetic, with the two logical directions treated asymmetrically: every *existence* claim is sealed by directly verifying $K_{b,n}(x) = x$ for witnesses, while every *emptiness* claim uses only necessary linear constraints (Section 3). The complete classification data and the verification code accompany the paper as ancillary files.

Structurally, the two theorems exhibit a striking transition (Section 6): the moduli-doubling phenomenon for odd bases (each family modulus D doubles to $2D$ under the odd-base restriction) persists from $n = 6$ to $n = 8$, but the palindromic witness that makes *every* even base admissible at $n = 6$ has no analogue at $n = 8$; its structural slot is occupied by a parity-blind $3 \mid b$ family, so that infinitely many even bases (e.g. $b \equiv 16 \pmod{30}$ outside the other families) admit no eight-digit fixed point. The asymptotic density of admissible bases is $68/105 \approx 0.648$ for $n = 6$ and $60/119 \approx 0.504$ for $n = 8$, the latter being identical for odd and even bases.

2. PRELIMINARIES AND THE CHANNEL DECOMPOSITION

Throughout, n is even, $h := n/2$, and $B := b - 1$.

¹Jordan works with multisets of digits, permitting leading zeros; we classify genuine n -digit integers (leading digit nonzero). The difference matters only in marginal small-base cases and affects no statement in this paper.

Definition 3. Let x have base- b digits sorted as $a_0 \geq a_1 \geq \dots \geq a_{n-1}$. The *difference vector* of x is $d(x) = (d_0, \dots, d_{h-1})$ with $d_i = a_i - a_{n-1-i}$.

Sortedness forces $d_0 \geq d_1 \geq \dots \geq d_{h-1} \geq 0$. A direct computation gives

$$(1) \quad K_{b,n}(x) = \sum_{i=0}^{h-1} d_i (b^{n-1-i} - b^i),$$

so $K_{b,n}$ depends on x only through $d(x)$, and x is a fixed point if and only if x equals the right-hand side of (1) evaluated at $d(x)$. This identity also underlies our ground-truth scanner: enumerating difference vectors costs $O(b^h)$ per base instead of $O(b^n)$.

Resolving the borrow chain in (1) yields the following *channel decomposition*. Let $t \in \{0, \dots, h-1\}$ be the number of trailing zeros of $d(x)$ and $m := h - t$.

Lemma 4 (successor formulas). *If x is a non-repdigit n -digit integer with difference vector d having t trailing zeros, then the digit string of $K_{b,n}(x)$, from most to least significant, is*

$$[d_0, d_1, \dots, d_{m-2}, d_{m-1} - 1, \underbrace{B, \dots, B}_{2t}, B - d_{m-1}, \dots, B - d_1, B + 1 - d_0].$$

In particular the digit sum of any n -digit fixed point equals $(h+t)B$, and the digit-sum multiples kB with $k = h, \dots, 2h-1$ partition all fixed points into h channels.

Proof. The column differences of desc-asc, from most to least significant, are $d_0, \dots, d_{h-1}, -d_{h-1}, \dots, -d_0$. Working from the right: the column $-d_0$ borrows (as $d_0 \geq 1$), producing digit $b - d_0$; each subsequent column $-d_i - 1$ with $i \geq 1$ is negative, producing $B - d_i$; the $2t$ central columns $0 - 1$ propagate the borrow producing digit B ; the first nonzero column from the centre, $d_{m-1} - 1 \geq 0$, absorbs the borrow; the remaining columns are unchanged. Summing the resulting digits gives $(h+t)B$. $\square$

For $n = 6$ the channels have digit sums $3B, 4B, 5B$; for $n = 8$ they are $4B, \dots, 7B$. Empirically (and, after Section 3, provably) only the channels $t = 0$ and $t = 1$ carry infinite families; channels $t \geq 2$ are overdetermined by t consistency conditions and collapse to finitely many small-base points.

3. METHOD: CELLS, EXACT CLASSIFICATION, AND CLOSURE

Fix n and a channel t , and let $E_1, \dots, E_n$ denote the n successor expressions of Lemma 4, each linear in $(d_0, \dots, d_{m-1})$ and B . If x is a fixed point, its multiset of digits is $\{E_j\}$; choosing a permutation σ that sorts the expressions into weakly decreasing order therefore places x in the cell σ , where the fixed-point condition becomes the linear system

$$E_{\sigma(i)} - E_{\sigma(n-1-i)} = d_i \quad (i = 0, \dots, h-1, \text{ with } d_i := 0 \text{ for } i \geq m),$$

that is, $A_\sigma d = B c_\sigma + e_\sigma$ with integer data. Here A_σ is the $h \times m$ integer matrix whose i -th row lists the coefficients of the unknowns $(d_0, \dots, d_{m-1})$ in the left-hand expression $E_{\sigma(i)} - E_{\sigma(n-1-i)} - d_i$, while c_σ and e_σ in $\mathbb{Z}^h$ collect, row by row, the coefficient of B and the constant term on the right. Every fixed point lies in at least one cell (ties are broken arbitrarily; all cell inequalities are closed), so classifying all cells classifies all fixed points.

Each cell is classified over $\mathbb{Q}$ by row reduction in exact rational arithmetic. Writing $\Delta := \det A_\sigma$ when the system is square and of full rank, a unique solution then has the closed form $d_i = (\alpha_i B + \beta_i) / \Delta$. The cells fall into four classes: (a) a unique solution valid for all B ; (b) a unique solution only at a single value of B ; (c) inconsistent (no solution); and (d) underdetermined (a positive-dimensional solution set). For cells in class (a) we then impose the full validity system — the sorting inequalities of σ , the digit bounds $0 \leq E_j \leq B$, $d_0 \geq 1$, the channel condition

$d_{m-1} \geq 1$, and monotonicity of d — all of which are linear in B , giving exact thresholds; integrality of the d_i imposes congruences on B modulo Δ . A cell whose inequalities hold for all large B and whose congruences are solvable yields an *infinite family*; a cell whose inequalities hold only in a window $[B_{\min}, B_{\max}]$ is exhausted by direct enumeration.

Worked examples ($n = 6$). To make the four classes concrete, take $n = 6$, where the six successor expressions are $E = (d_0, d_1, d_2 - 1, B - d_2, B - d_1, b - d_0)$ in channel $t = 0$ (three unknowns) and $E = (d_0, d_1 - 1, B, B, B - d_1, b - d_0)$ in channel $t = 1$ (two unknowns). One representative of each class:

(a) *Unique for all B — an infinite family.* In channel $t = 0$, the ordering $[B - d_2, d_0, d_1, B - d_1, b - d_0, d_2 - 1]$ yields

$$-d_0 - 2d_2 = -B - 1, \quad 2d_0 - d_1 = B + 1, \quad 2d_1 - d_2 = B,$$

with the unique solution $d = (\frac{7B+5}{9}, \frac{5B+1}{9}, \frac{B+2}{9})$, integral and valid for all $b \geq 8$. This is precisely the $b \equiv 8 \pmod{9}$ family of Table 1, with $\Delta = 9$.

(b) *Unique at a single B .* In channel $t = 1$, the ordering $[d_0, B, B, b - d_0, d_1 - 1, B - d_1]$ yields $d_1 = B$, $2d_1 = B + 1$, and $d_0 = 1$; the first two force $B = 1$, so this cell contributes a fixed point only at the single base $b = 2$.

(c) *Inconsistent.* In channel $t = 0$, the ordering $[d_0, d_2 - 1, d_1, b - d_0, B - d_1, B - d_2]$ yields both $d_2 = B$ and $d_2 = B + 1$; row reduction leaves the residual equation $0 = -1$, so the cell is empty for every base.

(d) *Underdetermined.* In channel $t = 0$, the ordering $[d_0, d_2 - 1, d_1, B - d_2, b - d_0, B - d_1]$ yields $d_1 = B$ (twice) together with $d_0 - d_1 + d_2 = B + 2$; the coefficient matrix has rank $2 < 3$, leaving one free parameter. Such cells are closed by the linear program of principle (ii) below.

Two design principles keep the argument airtight.

(i) *One-way door.* Every existence claim (family members, exceptional points) is finally verified by evaluating (1) and checking $K_{b,n}(x) = x$ directly; every emptiness claim uses only constraints that are provably necessary for a fixed point, all closed under equality. An off-by-one in a constraint can therefore cost efficiency, never correctness.²

(ii) *Exact closure of underdetermined cells.* In an underdetermined cell the solution set is affine in (B, u) , where the free parameter u is itself one of the $d_j \in [0, B]$. In every such cell arising for $n \in \{6, 8\}$ the free dimension is 1, so the validity region is a polyhedron in the (B, u) -plane. Since the constraints include $B \geq 1$ and $0 \leq u \leq B$, the region contains no line; hence, if nonempty, it has a vertex, and vertex enumeration over all constraint pairs (again in exact arithmetic) decides emptiness and, when bounded, computes $\max B$ exactly. Cells fixing a single B (the “finite- B ” underdetermined cells) are exhausted by direct enumeration of the free parameters at that base.

Finally, the entire pipeline is anchored to ground truth: an exhaustive difference-vector scan of all bases $b \leq 60$ (and, as an independent convention check, a naive full-range scan over all n -digit integers for small bases), against which every symbolic conclusion is compared point-by-point, plus an extension scan ($b \leq 150$ for $n = 6$, $b \leq 100$ for $n = 8$) confirming the classifications beyond the range used to build them. A further audit re-derives the verdicts of 1200 randomly sampled cells per length by exhaustive enumeration of the descending d -cone at two bases, independently of the linear algebra code.

4. THE CLASSIFICATION FOR $n = 6$

The four exceptional points have difference vectors $(1, 1, 1)$ at $b = 2$; $(3, 1, 1)$ and $(3, 3, 1)$ at $b = 4$; and $(5, 3, 1)$ at $b = 6$.

²One documented instance: in channel $t = 3$ the leading-digit constraint was implemented as $d_0 \geq 1$ where the exact condition is $d_0 \geq 2$. The slack is in the safe direction, and that channel is empty in any case.

TABLE 1. The four families for $n = 6$ ($B = b - 1$; missing d -components are 0). Origins: the $b \equiv 10$ (15) family is Jordan's [2]; the $b \equiv 6$ (7) family contains Jordan's examples at $b = 13, 55$ and his progression $b \equiv 13$ (21) as a one-third density subprogression; the $b \equiv 8$ (9) and $2 \mid b$ families appear to be new.

Channel	Congruence	d -vector	First members
$t = 1$	$b \equiv 0$ (2)	$(\frac{B+1}{2}, \frac{B+1}{2})$ (palindromic M_b)	2, 4, 6, ...
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 6$ (7)	$(\frac{5B+3}{7}, \frac{3B-1}{7}, \frac{B+2}{7})$	6, 13, 20, ...
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 8$ (9)	$(\frac{7B+5}{9}, \frac{5B+1}{9}, \frac{B+2}{9})$	8, 17, 26, ...
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 10$ (15)	$(\frac{3B+3}{5}, \frac{B}{3}, \frac{B+1}{5})$	10, 25, 40, ...

The cell census for the main channel $t = 0$ of $n = 6$: of the 720 orderings, 568 have a unique solution for all B (of which exactly 3 survive as infinite families), 140 admit no valid base, and 12 are underdetermined. The twelve underdetermined cells are closed exactly by the linear programming argument of Section 3: eleven have empty validity regions and one is bounded with $\max b \leq 60$, inside the exhaustively scanned range. The channel $t = 1$ contains no underdetermined cells and exactly one family, with modulus 2 and residue 0; consequently *no odd base has a fixed point in the $4B$ channel*, previously an empirical observation and now a consequence of the classification. Ground truth (52 fixed points for $b \leq 60$, digit-sum split $k = 3:22$, $k = 4:30$) matches the families plus exceptional points exactly, as does the extension scan to $b \leq 150$.

The density of admissible bases is $408/630 = 68/105$; among odd bases it is $186/630 = 31/105 \approx 0.295$, matching the classical count.

5. THE CLASSIFICATION FOR $n = 8$

TABLE 2. The six families for $n = 8$. Origins: the $b \equiv 10$ (15) family and the progression $b \equiv 13$ (21) appear in Jordan [2]; our $b \equiv 11$ (17) family contains his $b \equiv 28$ (51) progression as a one-third density subprogression; the $b \equiv 12$ (15), $b \equiv 14$ (17) and $3 \mid b$ families appear to be new.

Channel	Congruence	d -vector	First members
$t = 1$	$b \equiv 0$ (3)	$(\frac{2B+2}{3}, \frac{2B-1}{3}, \frac{B+1}{3})$	3, 6, 9, ...
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 10$ (15)	$(\frac{3B+3}{5}, \frac{B}{3}, \frac{B}{3}, \frac{B+1}{5})$	10, 25, 40, 55
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 12$ (15)	$(\frac{13B+7}{15}, \frac{11B-1}{15}, \frac{7B-2}{15}, \frac{B+4}{15})$	12, 27, 42, 57
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 11$ (17)	$(\frac{11B+9}{17}, \frac{7B-2}{17}, \frac{5B+1}{17}, \frac{3B+4}{17})$	11, 28, 45
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 14$ (17)	$(\frac{15B+9}{17}, \frac{13B+1}{17}, \frac{9B+2}{17}, \frac{B+4}{17})$	14, 31, 48
$t = 0$	$b \equiv 13$ (21)	$(\frac{5B+3}{7}, \frac{3B-1}{7}, \frac{B}{3}, \frac{B+2}{7})$	13, 34, 55

The nine exceptional points have difference vectors $(1, 1, 1, 1)$, $(1, 1, 1, 0)$, $(1, 1, 0, 0)$ at $b = 2$; $(3, 1, 1, 1)$, $(3, 3, 1, 1)$, $(3, 3, 3, 1)$ at $b = 4$; $(5, 5, 3, 1)$ at $b = 6$; $(7, 5, 3, 1)$ at $b = 8$; and $(9, 7, 5, 1)$ at $b = 10$.

Cell census: channel $t = 0$ has 40320 cells (33344 unique-for-all- B , of which 9 live cells give the five families of Table 2 after deduplication: cells sharing an identical solution merge, the $b \equiv 10$ (15) family arising in four distinct cells through the tied components $B/3$ of its d -vector, the other four families in one cell each, and one live cell being eliminated by integrality; 505 bounded windows, all exhausted — 15 window hits in total, none beyond $b = 14$; 5152 inconsistent; 1824

underdetermined). Channel $t = 1$ has 20160 distinct cells and exactly one family; channels $t = 2, 3$ close completely (only the $b = 2$ point, resp. nothing). Of the underdetermined cells, all 1162 finite- B ones fix bases $b \leq 60$, covered by the exhaustive scan; the 824 all- B ones all have free dimension one, and the exact LP closure finds 779 empty regions and 45 bounded with $\max b \leq 4$, and none unbounded. Hence the classification is complete for every base. In the extension range $61 \leq b \leq 100$ the scan finds fixed points in 22 of the 40 bases, 26 points in all, each one a member of the predicted families.

Remark 5 (base ten). The two classical eight-digit fixed points of base 10 (listed, among others, in OEIS [12]) are of different kinds: 63317664 (difference vector $(6, 3, 3, 2)$) is the first member of the $b \equiv 10 \pmod{15}$ family, while 97508421 $((9, 7, 5, 1))$ is exceptional: it belongs to no infinite family.

The density of admissible bases is $900/1785 = 60/119 \approx 0.504$; because every family modulus is odd, the density is the same among odd and among even bases.

6. STRUCTURAL COMPARISON AND THE PARITY MECHANISM

As an independent check, Thakur's data [5] on which bases carry a full attracting Kaprekar constant (a strictly stronger property than mere existence of a fixed point) sit inside our classification, as they must: his $n = 6$ constants at $b = 13, 17$ are the smallest members of our $b \equiv 13 \pmod{14}$ and $b \equiv 17 \pmod{18}$ families, and his $n = 8$ constant at $b = 3$ is the smallest member of our $3 \mid b$ family.

TABLE 3. Structural comparison.

	$n = 6$	$n = 8$
channels (live)	$3B, 4B$ (of $3B, 4B, 5B$)	$4B, 5B$ (of $4B, \dots, 7B$)
even bases	all admissible	not all (16, 20, 22, $\dots$ empty)
$t = 1$ witness divisor	2 (M_b , palindromic)	3
families / moduli	4 / $\{2, 7, 9, 15\}$	6 / $\{3, 15, 15, 17, 17, 21\}$
odd-base moduli	14, 18, 30 (doubled)	6, 30, 34, 42 (doubled)
density (all / odd)	68/105 / 31/105	60/119 / 60/119

This table has two sources. In channel t the system has h equations and $m = h - t$ unknowns, so $t = 0$ is square (many families), $t = 1$ carries exactly one consistency condition (one distinguished family), and $t \geq 2$ is overdetermined (finite collapse). Separately, the divisor of the single $t = 1$ family is even only at $n = 6$: it is 2 there, forcing $2 \mid b$ and creating the even/odd asymmetry, but 3 at $n = 8$ (and again at $n = 10$; see Remark 6), which is parity-blind. Since all $t = 0$ moduli are odd, the parity wall of $n = 6$ appears special to that divisor being 2 rather than a general feature; what fixes the $t = 1$ divisor for general n we leave open.

Remark 6 ($n = 10$). The pattern continues at $n = 10$, and it corrects a tempting guess. Substituting

$$d = \left(\frac{2B+2}{3}, \frac{2B+2}{3}, \frac{B+1}{3}, \frac{B+1}{3}, 0 \right)$$

into the successor string of Lemma 4 and re-sorting reproduces d for every $B \equiv 2 \pmod{3}$, $B \geq 2$ (all digit and ordering constraints hold; in the sorted string the tie $d_{m-1} - 1 = B - d_0$ closes the check). Hence *every* base $b \equiv 0 \pmod{3}$ admits a ten-digit fixed point: the distinguished $t = 1$ family has divisor 3, *not* the value $h - 1 = 4$ that the $n = 6, 8$ divisors $(2, 3)$ might suggest, and no even-base advantage returns; $3 \mid b$ persists, parity-blind, as at $n = 8$. A ground-truth scan

of all bases $b \leq 45$ (ancillary file `check_n10.py`) supports the rest of the qualitative picture: in that range the channels $t \geq 2$ contribute nothing beyond $b = 2$, and the $t = 0$ families visibly extend those of Table 2 — for example $b \equiv 10 \pmod{15}$ recurs (members $b = 10, 25, 40$) with $d = (\frac{3B+3}{5}, \frac{B}{3}, \frac{B}{3}, \frac{B}{3}, \frac{B+1}{5})$, the $n = 8$ family of the same congruence with one additional $\frac{B}{3}$ entry. For the $b \equiv 10 \pmod{15}$ family this cross-length uniformity is not new: it is precisely the parametrisation of Jordan’s 1964 construction [2], which our verification confirms independently. Whether these are *all* the infinite families at $n = 10$ awaits the full cell classification.

Two problems remain open. A complete $n = 10$ classification is feasible once the $10!$ cell enumeration is reduced to the riffle-shuffle interleavings of the two internally-ordered successor blocks (a few hundred per channel, versus $10!$ naively). And the general- n law governing the $t = 1$ divisor is genuinely open: its first three values 2, 3, 3 do not follow the naive $h - 1$, a reminder that two data points are not a pattern.

7. REPRODUCIBILITY

All computations use exact integer and rational arithmetic (no floating point). The ancillary files contain: the core scanner and the general even- n pipeline (`core.py`, `genpipe.py`, and the $n = 8$ phase scripts), the ground-truth data ($b \leq 60$), the complete cell classifications, and the audit scripts. A single command reruns each stage; the $n = 6$ hardening run reproduces the historical cell census 568/140/12 found in the author’s original computation, an independent cross-validation of both implementations.

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